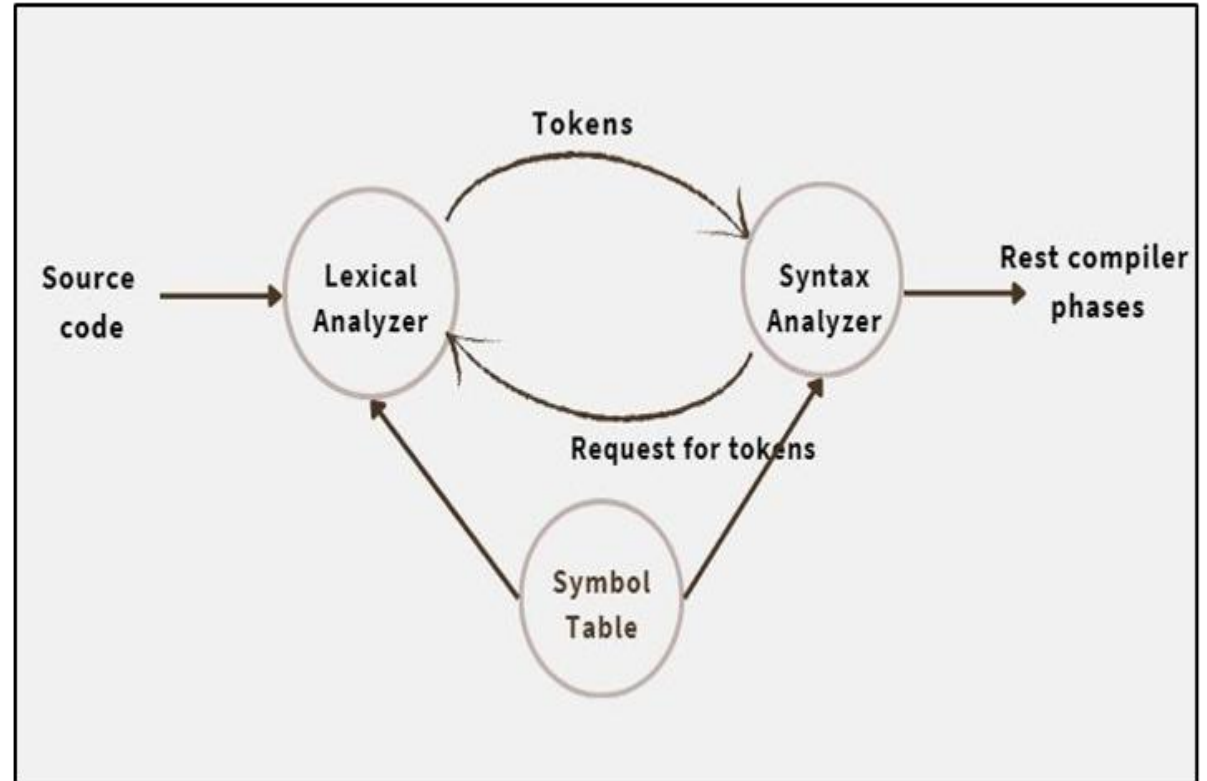


Unit 2

SYNTAX ANALYSIS

- Its role
- Basic parsing techniques:
 - Problem of Left Recursion
 - Left Factoring
 - Ambiguous Grammar
 - Top-down parsing
 - Bottom-up parsing
 - LR parsing



Syntax Analysis

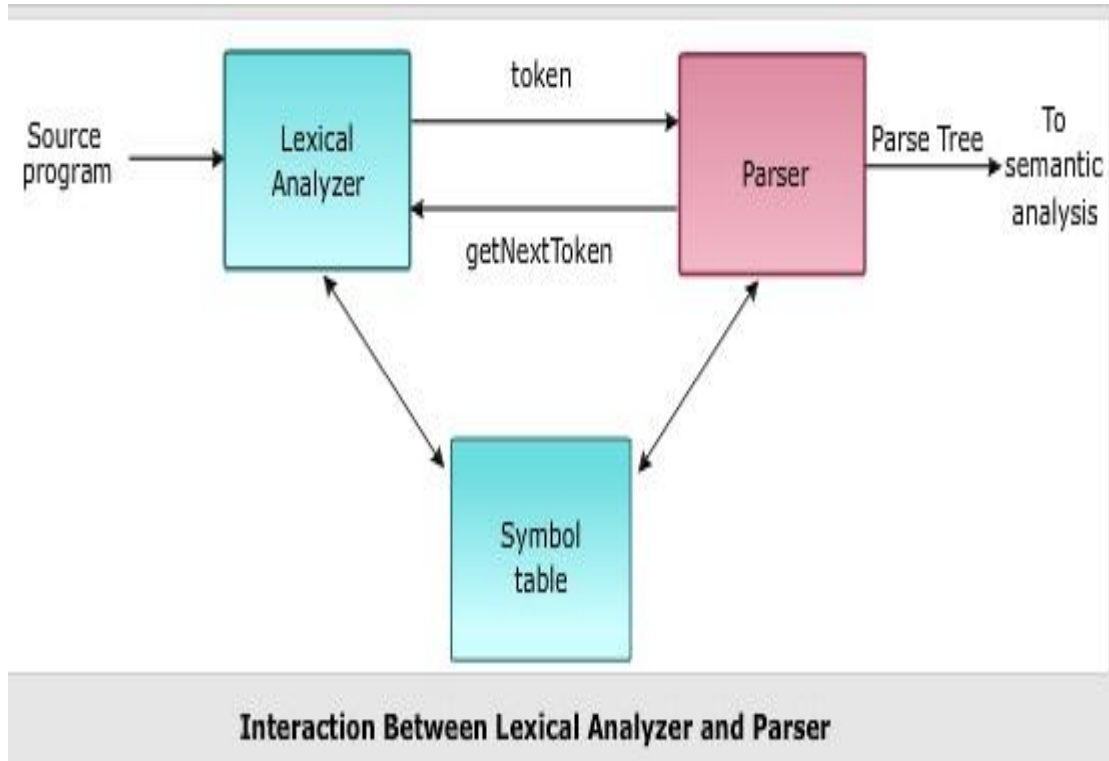
- Syntax Analysis is the second phase of a compiler.
- It receives tokens from the lexical analyzer.
- It checks whether the sequence of tokens follows the grammar rules of the programming language.
- If the token sequence is grammatically correct, it generates a parse tree.
- If the token sequence is grammatically incorrect, it reports a syntax error.
- Example

Input: $a = b + c$

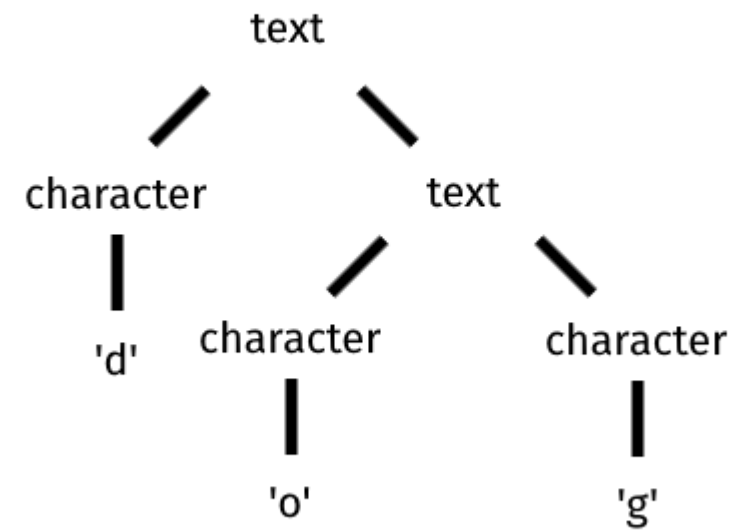
Tokens received from the lexical analyzer: $ID = ID + ID$

Result:

- If the tokens follow the grammar, the parser **accepts** the input and generates a **parse tree**.
- Otherwise, it **reports a syntax error**.



Parse Tree



Role of Syntax Analysis

- **Checks grammar:** Ensures that the program follows the grammar rules of the programming language.
- **Builds a Parse Tree:** Creates a parse tree to show the grammatical structure of the program.
- **Detects syntax errors:** Finds errors such as missing semicolons, missing brackets, or incorrect statement structure.
- **Reports errors:** Displays clear error messages to help the programmer correct the mistakes.
- **Passes the Parse Tree:** Sends the parse tree to the **Semantic Analysis** phase for further checking.

Parser

- A **parser** is a part of the compiler that receives **tokens** from the lexical analyzer and checks whether they follow the **grammar rules** of the programming language.
- If the sequence of tokens is correct, the parser creates a **parse tree**.
- If the syntax is incorrect, it reports **syntax errors**.

Working of a Parser

- **Input:** Receives tokens generated by the lexical analyzer.
- **Process:** Checks whether the tokens follow the grammar rules of the language.
- **Output:** Generates a parse tree for valid syntax or reports syntax errors for invalid syntax.

Tasks of a Parser in Compiler Design

- **Checks Syntax:** Verifies whether the program follows the grammar rules of the programming language.
- **Detects Syntax Errors:** Finds errors in the source code.
- **Locates Errors:** Identifies the position where the error occurs.
- **Reports Errors:** Displays clear and meaningful error messages.
- **Performs Error Recovery:** Continues parsing after an error to find more errors.
- **Accepts Correct Programs:** Successfully parses programs with correct syntax.
- **Rejects Incorrect Programs:** Reports syntax errors for programs that do not follow the grammar rules.

Basic Parsing Techniques

Parsing is the process of analyzing a sequence of tokens to check whether they follow the grammar rules of a programming language.

It determines the structure of the program and builds a **parse tree**.

There are two main approaches to parsing:

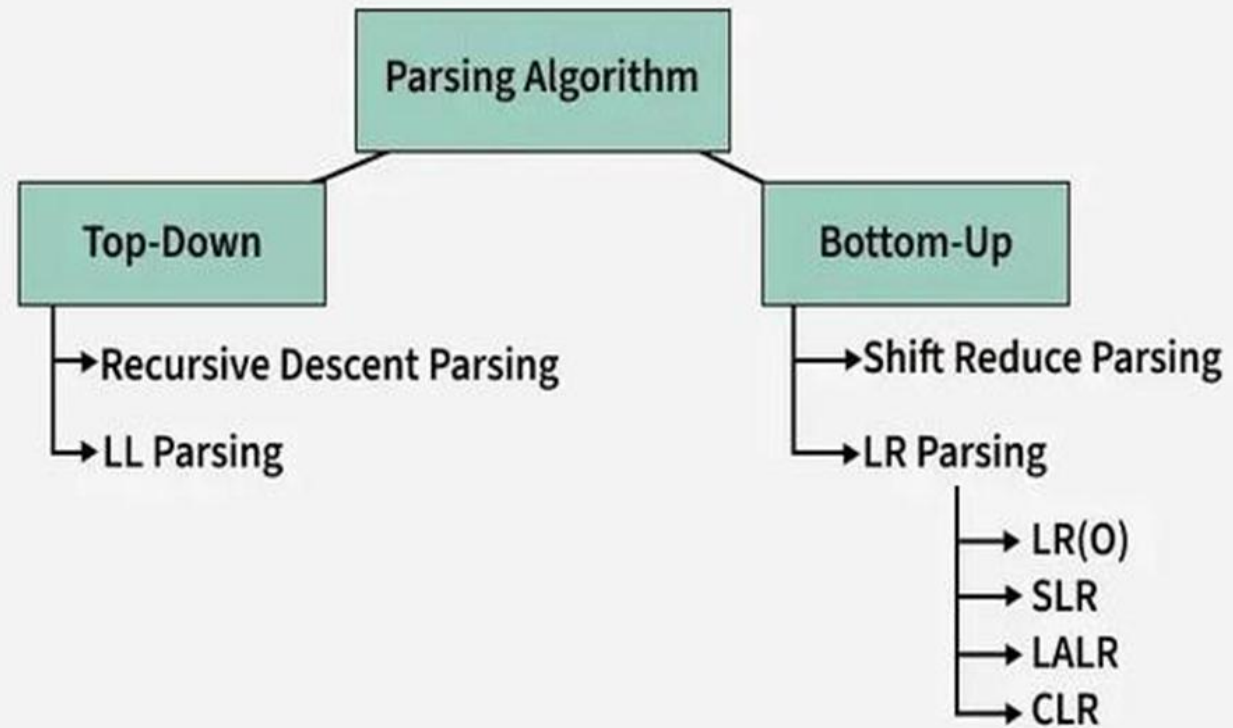
1. Top-Down Parsing

- Top-down parsing builds the parse tree from the root to the leaves by starting from the start symbol and applying grammar rules.
- Idea:
 - Starts from the start symbol of the grammar.
 - Breaks the grammar into smaller parts to match the input tokens.
- Methods:
 - Recursive Descent Parsing
 - Predictive (LL) Parsing

2. Bottom-Up Parsing

- Bottom-up parsing builds the parse tree from the leaves to the root by starting with input tokens and combining them to reach the start symbol.
- Idea:
 - Starts from the input tokens.
 - Combines tokens step by step until the complete grammar structure is formed.
- Methods:
 - Shift-Reduce Parsing
 - LR Parsing

Parsing Algorithm Used in Syntax Analysis



Left Recursion in a Grammar

- A grammar is said to have left recursion if a non-terminal calls itself as the leftmost symbol in one of its production rules.
- In other words, a production is left-recursive if it has the form:

$$A \rightarrow A\alpha$$

- where:

A is a non-terminal.

α is any sequence of terminals and/or non-terminals.

- Left recursion causes a top-down parser (such as recursive descent or predictive parsing) to enter an infinite recursion (loop).
- Therefore, left recursion must be eliminated before using predictive (LL) parsing.

EXAMPLE:

$$\begin{aligned} E &\rightarrow E + T \\ E &\rightarrow T \\ T &\rightarrow \text{id} \end{aligned}$$

Here, the production:

$$E \rightarrow E + T$$

is **left-recursive** because **E** appears as the leftmost symbol on the right-hand side.

Problems with Left Recursion

- It causes infinite recursion (or an infinite loop) in top-down parsers such as recursive descent and LL(1) parsers.

Major issues with left recursion

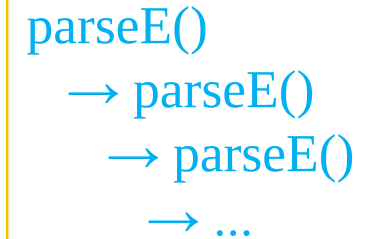
i. Infinite Recursion

- Left-recursive production causes the parser to repeatedly call the same parsing function.
- This results in an infinite loop or stack overflow.

Example:

$$E \rightarrow E + T \mid T$$

Here E calls itself before reading any input.



```
graph TD; A[parseE()] --> B[→ parseE()]; B --> C[→ parseE()]; C --> D[→ ...];
```

The diagram illustrates the recursive calls of the `parseE()` function. It shows a sequence of calls: `parseE()` calls `→ parseE()`, which calls `→ parseE()`, which then calls `→ ...`. This sequence is enclosed in a yellow rectangular box.

ii. Stack Overflow

- Since the parser keeps making recursive calls, the program's call stack grows until it exceeds its limit, causing a stack overflow.

iii. Parser Cannot Make Progress

- The parser repeatedly expands the same nonterminal without consuming any input symbols.
- As a result, it never reaches the terminal symbols needed for parsing.

iv. Not Suitable for LL(1) Parsing

- LL(1) parsers require grammars without left recursion.
- Left-recursive grammars cannot be directly used to construct LL(1) parsing tables.

v. Increases Parsing Complexity

- Left-recursive grammars complicate parser implementation and must be transformed before using top-down parsing techniques.

Solution:

- Left recursion is eliminated by rewriting the grammar into an equivalent grammar that is not left recursive.
- Use left factoring only when two or more productions have a common prefix. Left factoring is not the technique for removing left recursion.

Types of Left Recursion

1. Direct Left Recursion

- A non-terminal immediately calls itself.

$$A \rightarrow A\alpha \mid \beta$$

where:

A is non terminal

α is any sequence of grammar symbols

β is a production that does not begin with A

- Example: $E \rightarrow E + T \mid T$

$$T \rightarrow id$$

2. Indirect Left Recursion

- A non-terminal calls itself through one or more other non-terminals.
- Example:

$$A \rightarrow B\alpha$$

$$B \rightarrow A\beta \mid c$$

Here

$$A \Rightarrow B\alpha \Rightarrow A\beta\alpha$$

- So, A indirectly calls itself, making the grammar indirectly left-recursive.

How to eliminate left recursion

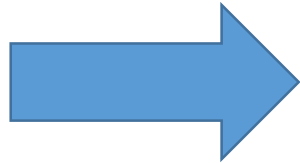
We can eliminate left recursion by replacing a pair of production

$A \rightarrow A\alpha \mid \beta$ with:

$$A \rightarrow \beta A'$$

$$A' \rightarrow \alpha A' \mid \epsilon$$

Example 1: $S \rightarrow Sb \mid a$



$S \rightarrow aS'$

$S' \rightarrow bS' \mid \epsilon$

Example 2: $A \rightarrow ABd \mid Aa \mid a$

$B \rightarrow Be \mid b$



$A \rightarrow aA'$

$A' \rightarrow BdA' \mid aA' \mid \epsilon$

$B \rightarrow bB'$

$B' \rightarrow eB' \mid \epsilon$

Example 3:

$$A \rightarrow B a | c$$

$$B \rightarrow A b | d$$

Step1 : Look for indirect recursion if any
Substitute A into B, we get

$$B \rightarrow (B a | c) b | d$$

$$B \rightarrow B a b | c b | d$$

Now it becomes **direct left recursion**.

Step 2: Eliminate Direct Left Recursion

- Introduce any new non terminal say B'
- Grammar becomes:

$$A \rightarrow B a | c$$

$$B \rightarrow c b B' | d B'$$

$$B' \rightarrow a b B' | \epsilon$$

This grammar has no left recursion now

Remove left Recursion of given grammar

1. $E \rightarrow E+T|T$
 $T \rightarrow T*F|F$
 $F \rightarrow (E)|id$

2. $S \rightarrow a|^|(T)$
 $T \rightarrow T, S|S$

3. [TU 2078]

$$\begin{aligned} S &\rightarrow SB \mid Ca \\ B &\rightarrow Bb \mid c \\ C &\rightarrow aB \mid a \end{aligned}$$

$$E \rightarrow TE'$$

$$E' \rightarrow +TE' \mid \varepsilon$$

$$T \rightarrow FT'$$

$$T \rightarrow *FT' \mid \varepsilon$$

$$F \rightarrow (E) \mid id$$

$$S \rightarrow a|^|(T)$$

$$T \rightarrow ST'$$

$$T' \rightarrow ,ST' \mid \varepsilon$$

Left Factoring

- **Left factoring** is a grammar transformation technique used to remove the **common prefix** from two or more productions of the same nonterminal.
- It helps a **predictive (LL(1)) parser** decide which production to use by delaying the decision until enough input has been read.
- Left factoring is **not** used to remove left recursion. It is used only when productions share a common prefix.

Why is Left Factoring Needed?

$$A \rightarrow \alpha\beta_1 \mid \alpha\beta_2$$

Both productions start with the common prefix α .

A predictive parser cannot determine which production to choose after seeing α

Left factoring removes this ambiguity

Example:

$$A \rightarrow \alpha\beta_1 \mid \alpha\beta_2$$

After Left Factoring:

$$A \rightarrow \alpha A'$$

$$A' \rightarrow \beta_1 \mid \beta_2$$

where:

α is common prefix

β_1 and β_2 remaining parts of the productions

Ambiguous Grammar

- An ambiguous grammar is a grammar in which the same input string can be generated in more than one way.
- A grammar is ambiguous if at least one string in the language has more than one parse tree.
- This means the same input string has:
 - More than one parse tree, or
 - More than one leftmost derivation, or
 - More than one rightmost derivation.

Causes of Ambiguity

The two main causes are:

- Operator Precedence : Precedence determines which operator is evaluated first.
- Operator Associativity : determines the order of evaluation when operators have the same precedence.

Example:

Consider the grammar:

$$E \rightarrow E + E \mid E * E \mid id$$

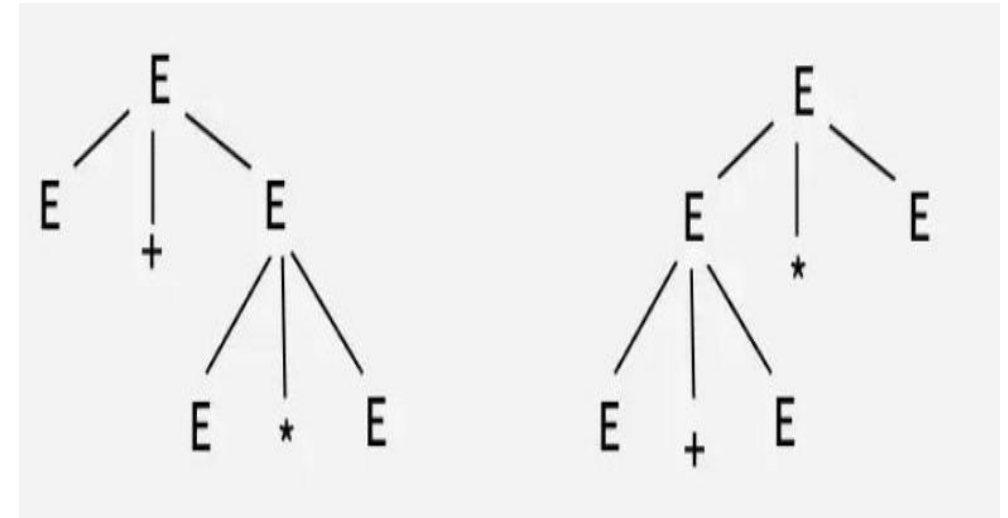
Let any string be: $id + id * id$

This string can be parsed in two different ways.

Groups Addition first: $(id + id) * id$

Groups Multiplication first: $id + (id * id)$

Since the same string has **two different parse trees**, the grammar is **ambiguous**.



More than one parse tree

$$E \rightarrow E + E$$

$$\rightarrow id + E$$

$$\rightarrow id + E * E$$

$$\rightarrow id + id * E$$

$$\rightarrow id + id * id$$

$$E \rightarrow E * E$$

$$\rightarrow E + E * E$$

$$\rightarrow id + E * E$$

$$\rightarrow id + id * E$$

$$\rightarrow id + id * id$$

More than one leftmost derivation

Why is Ambiguity a Problem?

- Ambiguity is a problem because the same input can have more than one meaning.
- If a grammar produces multiple parse trees for the same statement, the compiler cannot decide which meaning is correct.
- This can lead to incorrect results during program execution.
- Therefore, a compiler needs a clear and unique parse tree to understand the program correctly and generate accurate machine code.

Example:

Any string : $2+3*4$

- This statement can be parsed in two ways
 - If parsed as $(2+3)*4$, the result is **20**.
 - If parsed as $2+(3*4)$, the result is **14**.
- Different parse trees produce different meanings.

Removing Ambiguity from a Grammar

- Removing ambiguity means rewriting a grammar so that every valid string has only one parse tree.
- The language does not change—only the grammar is rewritten to eliminate multiple possible parses.

Unambiguous Grammar

- A CFG is called unambiguous if every string generated by the grammar has only one parse tree.
- In other words, each string has:
 - Only one leftmost derivation.
 - Only one rightmost derivation.
- An unambiguous grammar gives a single, clear meaning to every input string, which helps the compiler generate correct results.

Example:

$$E \rightarrow E + T \mid T$$
$$T \rightarrow \text{id}$$

Input string: $\text{id} + \text{id}$

For this string, This grammar produces only one parse tree. [Verify this yourself]

Therefore, the grammar is unambiguous.

Top-Down Parsing

- **Top-down parsing** is a parsing technique in which the parser starts with the **start symbol** of the grammar and expands **non-terminals** until the input string is matched.
- The parser predicts which production rule to use at each step and compares the generated symbols with the input tokens.
- If the symbols match, parsing continues; otherwise, the parser reports an error or tries another rule (in parsers that support backtracking).
- In this Parsing
 - Parsing begins from the root of the parse tree.
 - The parse tree is built from top to bottom.
 - It always produces the leftmost derivation of the input string.

Top-Down Parsing : Procedure

Top-down parsing follows these main steps:

- Start with the start symbol

Begin parsing from the grammar's start symbol (e.g., S).

- Apply production rules

Replace the non-terminal with its production rules to match the input.

- Match input tokens

Compare generated symbols with the input string step by step.

- Backtracking (if needed)

If a chosen rule does not match, the parser may go back and try another rule

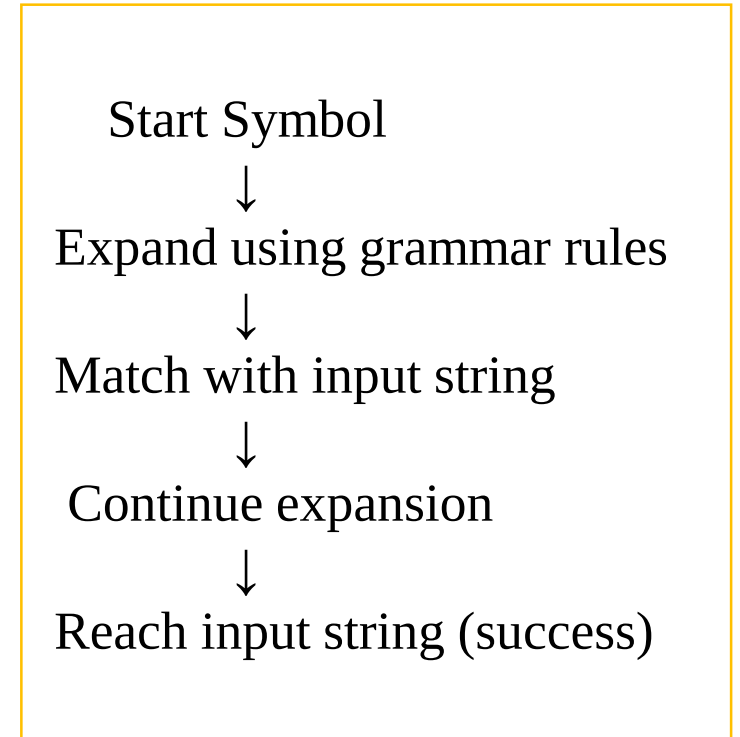
- Continue until completion

Repeat expansion until:

The input is fully matched → success

No valid rule works → failure

Compiled By: Ashok Pandey



Characteristics

- Starts with the start symbol.
- Builds the parse tree from top to bottom.
- Produces the leftmost derivation.
- Simpler to implement than bottom-up parsing.
- Cannot handle left-recursive grammars directly.
- Often requires left factoring to remove common prefixes.

Example: Top-Down Parsing

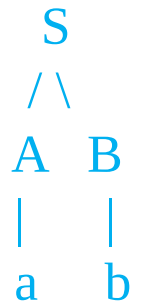
Grammar

- $S \rightarrow A B$
- $A \rightarrow a$
- $B \rightarrow b$

Input String : ab

Step-by-step Top-Down Parsing

- Start S
- Apply rule $S \rightarrow A B$
- Expand $A \rightarrow a$ a B
- Match a with input a
- Expand $B \rightarrow b$ a b
- Match b with input b



Result

- Input string “ab” is successfully parsed

Recursive Descent Parsing

- Recursive descent parsing is a top-down parsing technique.
- It uses one recursive function for each nonterminal in the grammar.
- Each function tries to match the input according to the production rules of that nonterminal.
- These functions call one another recursively to parse the input tokens based on the grammar.
- It is easy to understand and implement.
- **Limitations:**
- **Left recursion** causes infinite recursion, so the grammar must be modified to remove left recursion.
- **Backtracking** may occur if the parser chooses the wrong production and has to return to a previous point to try another one, making parsing slower.

Grammar:

$S \rightarrow aA$

$A \rightarrow b$

Input: ab

Functions:

S():

 match('a')

 A()

A():

 match('b')

Algorithm : Recursive Descent Parsing

- ✓ Start with the start symbol.
- ✓ Call the function for the start symbol.
- ✓ If the current symbol is a terminal, compare it with the input.
- ✓ If it matches, move to the next input symbol.
- ✓ If the symbol is a nonterminal, call its function.
- ✓ Continue until all input symbols are matched.
- ✓ If all symbols match, accept; otherwise, reject.

```
void A() {  
1)          Choose an A-production, A-> X1 X2 ... Xk;  
  
2)          for (i = 1 to k) {  
  
3)              if (Xi is a nonterminal)  
  
4)                  call procedure Xi();  
  
5)              else if (Xi = current input symbol a)  
  
6)                  advance the input to the next symbol;  
  
7)              else /* an error has occurred */;
```

Backtracking in Top-Down Parsing

- Backtracking is a technique used in top-down parsing when the selected production rule does not match the input.
- The parser returns to the point where it made the decision and tries another production rule for the same non-terminal.
- During backtracking, the parser:
 - Returns to the previous decision point.
 - Removes the failed parsing path (subtree).
 - Moves the input pointer back to the beginning of that parsing attempt.
 - Tries another production rule.
- Since the parser may scan the input more than once, backtracking takes more time and is less efficient.
- Therefore, backtracking parsers are rarely used in compiler design.

Example 1:

$S \rightarrow aA \mid aB$

$A \rightarrow b$

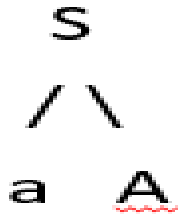
$B \rightarrow c$

- Input String: **ac**

Solution:

Here First input symbol is a

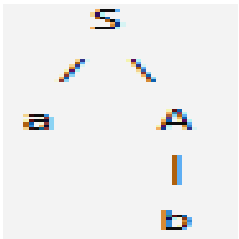
Choosing grammar $S \rightarrow aA$

And Creating parse tree  

The leftmost leaf **a** of the tree matches the first symbol of the input string **a**.

Thus, we will advance the input pointer to the next symbol of the input string **c**.

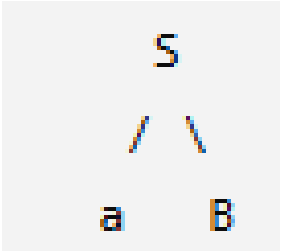
The next tree node is **A**. so expanding $A \rightarrow b$, we get Parse tree as:



Here current input symbol **c** does not match with leaf node **b**, Thus the production $S \rightarrow aA$ fails to parse the string.

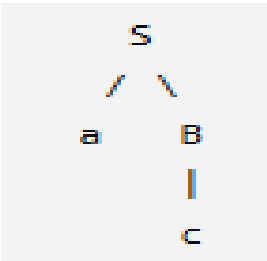
So **Backtrack** to previous decision point.

Now Choosing production $S \rightarrow aB$ and expanding it:



The leftmost leaf **a** of the tree matches the first symbol of the input string **a**.

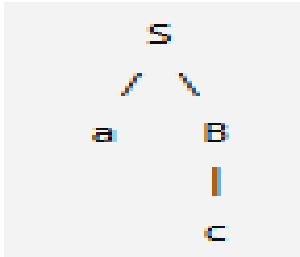
Now expand next node **B** with production $B \rightarrow c$



Here current input symbol **c** matches with Leaf node **c**.

Since there are no more input symbols remaining, parsing completes.

And Final Parse tree is:



Parsing Process:

$S \rightarrow aA \mid aB$

$A \rightarrow b$

$B \rightarrow c$

- Input String: ac

Input	Action / Rule Used	Output
ac	Start with S	—
ac	Use $S \rightarrow aA$	aA
c	Match a	a
c	Use $A \rightarrow b$	Expect b
c	b does not match c	Fail
ac	Backtrack	Return to S
ac	Use $S \rightarrow aB$	aB
c	Match a	a
ϵ	Use $B \rightarrow c$ and match c	ac
ϵ	Parsing completed	Accepted

Class / Home Work

Recursive Descent Parsing Practices

Practice 1:

$S \rightarrow abA \mid abB$

$A \rightarrow c$

$B \rightarrow d$

Input string: abd

Practice 2:

$S \rightarrow aAB \mid aC$

$A \rightarrow b$

$B \rightarrow d$

$C \rightarrow bc$

Input string : abc

Practice 3:

$S \rightarrow aS \mid bA$

$A \rightarrow bA \mid c$

Input String : aabc

Practice 4:

$S \rightarrow aAd$

$A \rightarrow b \mid bc$

Input String : abcd

Practice 5:

$S \rightarrow aA \mid b$

$A \rightarrow cD \mid cE$

$D \rightarrow d$

$E \rightarrow e$

Input String : ace

Practice 6:

$S \rightarrow aBc \mid aaB$

$B \rightarrow bc \mid a$

Input string= aaa

Non-Backtracking Parsing

- In non-backtracking parsing, the parser does not go back to try another rule after making a choice.
- It uses a predictive parsing table to choose the correct grammar rule.
- The parser looks at:
 - the top non-terminal on the stack, and
 - the next input symbol.
- Since it never goes back, it parses faster and is more efficient.
- The grammar should be left-factored and usually should not have left recursion.
- Major non-backtracking parsing methods are:
 - Predictive Parser and
 - LL(1) Parser

Predictive Parsing

- Predictive parsing is a simple form of recursive descent parsing.
- It is a top-down parsing technique used to check whether an input string follows the grammar of a language.
- Unlike recursive descent parsing, predictive parsing does not use backtracking.
- Once it selects a production rule, it does not return to try another rule.
- It uses a predictive parsing table to choose the correct production rule.
- The parser makes its decision based on:
 - the top non-terminal on the stack, and
 - the next input symbol, called the lookahead.
- Usually, the parser looks one input symbol ahead. This is known as LL(1) parsing.
- Using the parsing table, the parser predicts the correct production rule before continuing with the rest of the input.

Predictive Parsing : Steps

- Push the start symbol of the grammar onto the stack.
- Pop the top symbol from the stack.
- If it is a terminal:
 - Match it with the next input symbol.
 - If matched, move to the next input; otherwise, report an error.
- If it is a non-terminal:
 - Use the predictive parsing table and lookahead to choose the correct production.
 - Push the production's right-hand side onto the stack.
- Repeat until the stack and input are empty.
- Accept the input if both become empty; otherwise, reject it.

Advantages

- Easy to implement.
- No backtracking is required.
- Faster than recursive descent parsing with backtracking.
- Produces deterministic parsing.
- Detects syntax errors quickly.

Limitation

- It can parse only grammars that are left-factored and free from left recursion.

Components of a Predictive Top-Down Parser

1. Stack

- Stores the grammar symbols.
- Initially contains the **start symbol** on top of the \$ end marker.

2. Input Buffer

- Stores the input string to be parsed.
- Ends with the \$ symbol, which marks the end of the input.

3. Parsing Table

- Helps the parser choose the correct production rule.
- It is built using the **FIRST** and **FOLLOW** sets.

Remember

- Both the stack and the input buffer contain the \$ end marker.
- \$ indicates the bottom of the stack and the end of the input string.
- At the beginning, the start symbol is placed on top of \$ in the stack.

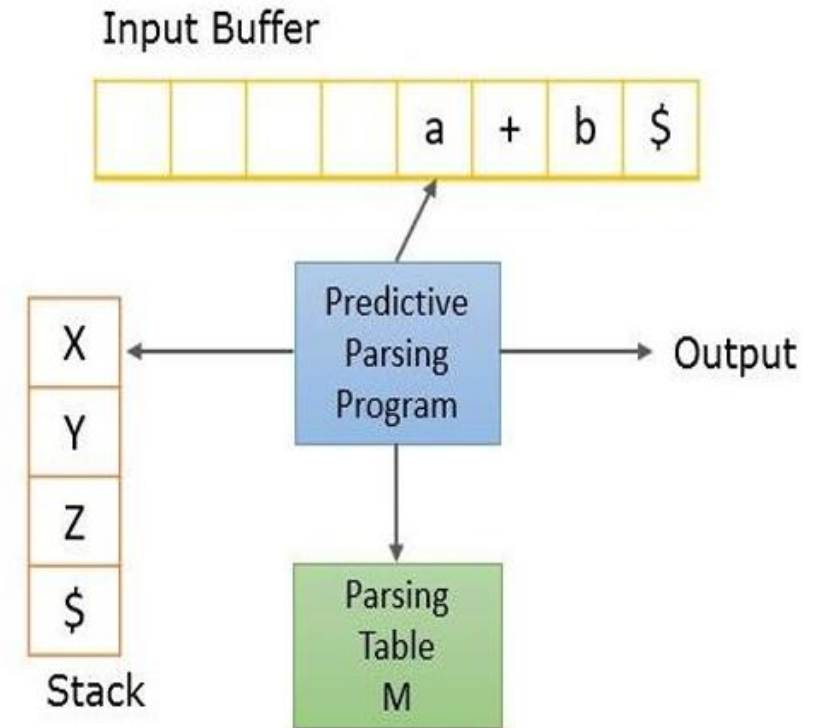


Table-Driven Predictive Recursive Parsing

Example1:

Given grammar

$S \rightarrow aA$
 $A \rightarrow b$

Parse
Table

Non-terminal	a	b	\$
S	$S \rightarrow aA$	—	—
A	—	$A \rightarrow b$	—

Input String : **ab\$**

Initial Stack: **S\$**

Parsing Process explanation:

- The parser starts with **S** on the stack.
- It uses the parsing table to choose $S \rightarrow aA$
- It matches TOS **a** with the input symbol **a**.
- Then it chooses $A \rightarrow b$.
- It matches TOS **b** with input symbol **b**.
- Both the stack and input become empty, so the string is **accepted**.

Stack	Input	Action
S\$	ab\$	Start
S\$	ab\$	Apply $S \rightarrow aA$
aA\$	ab\$	Push A then a
A\$	b\$	Match a
A\$	b\$	Apply $A \rightarrow b$
b\$	b\$	Push b
\$	\$	Match b
Empty	Empty	Accept

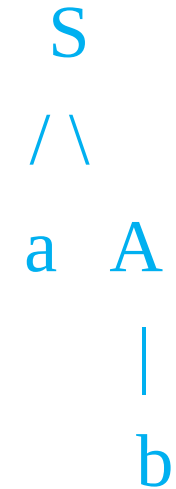
Parse Tree Computation

- Start with **S**.
- Apply production:
 $S \rightarrow aA$
- Apply production:
 $A \rightarrow b$
- The leaves from left to right give:
a then b

The leaves matches the input string **ab**.

Therefore, the string **ab** is **accepted** by the grammar.

Parse Tree



Example2:

Given Grammar is:

$S \rightarrow aBa$

$B \rightarrow bB \mid \epsilon$

Input String: $abba\$$

Initial Stack: $S\$$

Parsing Table:

Non-terminal	a	b	\$
S	$S \rightarrow aBa$	-	-
B	$B \rightarrow \epsilon$	$B \rightarrow bB$	-

Predictive Parsing

Stack	Input	Action
$S\$$	$abba\$$	Start
$aBa\$$	$abba\$$	Apply $S \rightarrow aBa$
$Ba\$$	$bba\$$	Match a
$bBa\$$	$bba\$$	Apply $B \rightarrow bB$
$Ba\$$	$ba\$$	Match b
$bBa\$$	$ba\$$	Apply $B \rightarrow bB$
$Ba\$$	$a\$$	Match b
$a\$$	$a\$$	Apply $B \rightarrow \epsilon$
$\$$	$\$$	Match a
Empty	Empty	Accept

Parse Tree Construction

Given Grammar is:

$S \rightarrow aBa$

$B \rightarrow bB \mid \varepsilon$

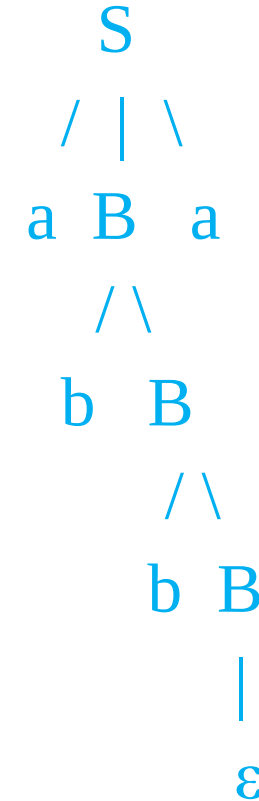
Input String: **abba**

Now Using the productions selected during predictive parsing, the parse tree for the given string is as follows:

Reading leaves from left to right and ignoring ε gives string : **abba**

This matches with the given input string

Therefore, the given string **is accepted** by the grammar.



Example:

Given Grammar

$$S \rightarrow aAa \mid BAa \mid \varepsilon$$

$$A \rightarrow cA \mid bA \mid \varepsilon$$

$$B \rightarrow b \mid \varepsilon$$

Input string: **bcba**

	a	b	c	\$
S	$S \rightarrow aAa$	$S \rightarrow BAa$		$S \rightarrow \varepsilon$
A	$A \rightarrow \varepsilon$	$A \rightarrow bA$	$A \rightarrow cA$	
B		$B \rightarrow b$		

Stack	Remaining input	Action
\$S	bcba\$	choose $S \rightarrow BAa$
\$aAB	bcba\$	choose $B \rightarrow b$
\$aAb	bcba\$	match b
\$aA	cba\$	choose $A \rightarrow cA$
\$aAc	cba\$	match c
\$aA	ba\$	choose $A \rightarrow bA$
\$aAb	ba\$	match b
\$aA	a\$	choose $A \rightarrow \varepsilon$
\$a	a\$	match a
\$	\$	Accept

Build Parse Tree Yourself

Class / Home Work

Predictive Parsing Practices

Practice 1:

$$S \rightarrow aA$$

$$A \rightarrow bA \mid \varepsilon$$

Input String: aab

Parsing Table:

Non-terminal	a	b	\$
S	$S \rightarrow aA$	—	—
A	$A \rightarrow bA$	$A \rightarrow \varepsilon$	$A \rightarrow \varepsilon$

Practice 2:

$$E \rightarrow T E'$$

$$E' \rightarrow + T E' \mid \varepsilon$$

$$T \rightarrow \text{id}$$

Input String: id + id

Parsing Table:

Non-terminal	id	+	\$
E	$E \rightarrow T E'$	—	—
E'	—	$E' \rightarrow + T E'$	$E' \rightarrow \varepsilon$
T	$T \rightarrow \text{id}$	—	—

LL Parsing: Introduction

- **LL Parsing** is a **top-down parsing** technique.
- The first **L** means the parser reads the input **from Left to right**.
- The second **L** means it creates a **Leftmost derivation**.

Features of LL Parsing

- It uses a **lookahead symbol** to check the next input symbol and choose the correct grammar rule.
- The parser **predicts the production rule** to use without trying different rules.
- It does **not use backtracking**, which makes parsing faster and simpler.
- LL parsing can handle many programming language grammars.

LL(k) Parser

- The value k represents the number of lookahead symbols used by the parser.
- If a parser uses k lookahead symbols, it is called an LL(k) parser.
- Example:
 - LL(1) $\rightarrow$ Uses one lookahead symbol to make a decision.

Working of LL Parser

- When the parser finds a non-terminal, it checks the lookahead symbol.
- Using this information, it selects the correct production rule.
- The selected rule is used to continue parsing the input.

LL Parser

- An LL parser is a type of predictive parser that uses a parsing table and a stack to select the correct production rule.
- It reads the input from Left to right and produces a Leftmost derivation.
- The parser uses the current non-terminal and the lookahead symbol (next input symbol) to find the correct rule from the parsing table.
- If a non-terminal has more than one production rule, the parser uses the lookahead symbol to predict the correct production.
- LL parsers do not use backtracking, so they are fast and efficient.

To build an LL parser, we need:

- The current non-terminal (top symbol to be expanded).
- The next input symbol (lookahead) to decide which production rule to apply.

Model of LL Parser

An **LL parser** has three main components:

1. Input Buffer

- Stores the input string.
- Reads input from **left to right**.
- Uses **\$** as the end marker.

2. Stack

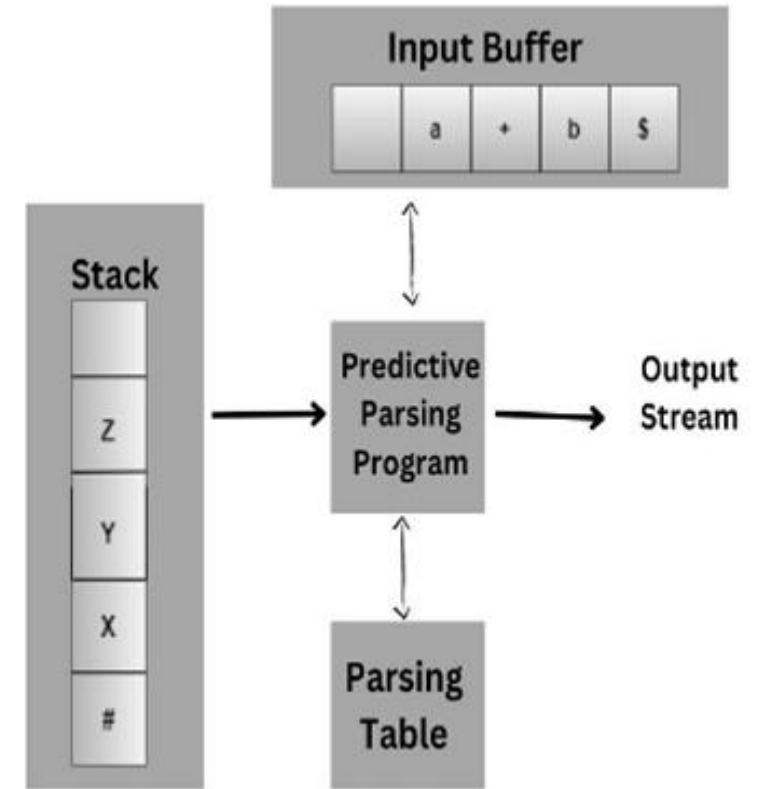
- Stores grammar symbols.
- Initially contains the **start symbol** and **\$**.
- Keeps track of symbols to be processed.

3. Parsing Table

- Selects the correct production rule.
- Uses the **stack top** and **lookahead** symbol.
- Built using **FIRST** and **FOLLOW** sets.

LL Parsing Process:

- If the stack top is a **terminal**, match it with the input.
- If it is a **non-terminal**, use the parsing table to choose a production rule.



Working Process of LL Parser

- Initialize the stack with the **start symbol** and \$ (end marker).
- Read the input **from left to right** using the **lookahead symbol**.
- If the top of the stack is a **terminal**, compare it with the input symbol:
 - If they match, remove both and continue.
 - If they do not match, report an error.
- If the top of the stack is a **non-terminal**, use the **parsing table** to select the correct production rule.
- Repeat the process until the **stack and input are empty**.
- If both are empty, **accept the input**; otherwise, report an error.

LL(1) Parser

- An LL(1) parser is a type of predictive parser that works without backtracking.
- It reads the input from Left to right and produces a Leftmost derivation.
- The 1 means it uses one lookahead input symbol to choose the correct production rule.
- LL(1) grammars should have no left recursion and no ambiguity.
- LL(1) parsers are simple, efficient, and easy to construct.
- Many programming language grammars are designed to be LL(1).

LL(1) Grammar

A grammar is LL(1) if all of the following conditions are satisfied:

- No left recursion
- Grammar is left-factored (if needed)
- No parsing table cell contains more than one production

Requirements of LL(1) Parser

The main requirements for an **LL(1) parser** are:

- **No Left Recursion and Left Factoring**
 - The grammar should not contain left recursion and should be left-factored to avoid conflicts.
- **FIRST() and FOLLOW() Sets**
 - Used to determine the correct production rules for the parsing table.
- **Parsing Table**
 - Helps the parser select the appropriate production rule using the lookahead symbol.
- **Stack Implementation**
 - Stores grammar symbols and helps perform the parsing process.
- **Parse Tree**
 - Represents the structure of the input string according to the grammar.

FIRST and FOLLOW Computation

First() & Follow()

Compiler Design



	First()	Follow()
Aa	{b,d,a}	{ \$ }
BD	{b,d, ϵ }	{a}
b ϵ	{b, ϵ }	{d,a}
d ϵ	{d, ϵ }	{a}

FIRST() Function:

- **FIRST** gives the set of terminals that can appear at the **beginning** of a string derived from a non-terminal.
- It is used to decide which production rule to choose in an LL(1) parsing table.
- $\text{First}(\alpha)$ is a set of terminal symbols that begin in strings derived from α

Rules for FIRST():

- ✓ Rule-1: For a production rule $X \rightarrow \epsilon$, $\text{First}(X) = \{ \epsilon \}$
- ✓ Rule-2: For any terminal symbol 'a', $\text{First}(a) = \{ a \}$
- ✓ Rule-3: For a production rule $X \rightarrow Y_1 | Y_2 | Y_3 \dots | Y_n$, then
$$\text{First}(X) = \text{First}(Y_1) \cup \text{First}(Y_2) \cup \text{First}(Y_3) \cup \dots \cup \text{First}(Y_n)$$
- ✓ Rule-4: For a production rule $X \rightarrow Y_1 Y_2 Y_3 \dots Y_n$
 - If **Y_1 cannot produce ϵ** i.e. $\epsilon \notin \text{First}(Y_1)$, $\text{First}(X) = \text{First}(Y_1)$
 - If **Y_1 can produce ϵ** : i.e. $\epsilon \in \text{First}(Y_1)$, $\text{First}(X) = \text{First}(Y_1) - \{ \epsilon \} \cup \text{First}(Y_2 Y_3 \dots)$
 - Continue for remaining symbols:
 - If Y_2 can also produce ϵ , add $\text{FIRST}(Y_2)$ except ϵ and check Y_3 .
 - Continue until a symbol that **cannot produce ϵ** is found.
 - If all symbols can produce ϵ , add ϵ to $\text{First}(X)$.

FOLLOW() Function:

- During the process of derivation, terminals that could follow the non terminal are considered as follow of that non terminal.
- **Follow()** gives the set of terminals that can appear **immediately after a non-terminal** in a grammar.
- It is used in **LL(1) parsing** to create the parsing table, especially for **ϵ (empty) productions**.
- **Rules for Computing Follow:**
 - ✓ Rule-1: For the start symbol S, place \$ in Follow(S).
 - ✓ Rule-2: For any production rule $A \rightarrow \alpha B$, add Follow(A) to Follow(B)
 - ✓ Rule-3: For any production rule $A \rightarrow \alpha B\beta$,
 - a. If $\epsilon \notin \text{First}(\beta)$, then add $\text{First}(\beta)$ to Follow(B)
 - b. If $\epsilon \in \text{First}(\beta)$, then add $\{ \text{First}(\beta) - \epsilon \}$ and Follow(A) to Follow(B)

Importance:

- FOLLOW sets help decide where to place **ϵ -productions** in the LL(1) parsing table.
- They help the parser know what symbol can come after a non-terminal.

Example 1:

Given Grammar:

$S \rightarrow aBDh$

$B \rightarrow cC$

$C \rightarrow bC / \epsilon$

$D \rightarrow EF$

$E \rightarrow g / \epsilon$

$F \rightarrow f / \epsilon$

Compute first() and Follow()

Simple Rule to Remember to compute

FIRST(XY)

- Take FIRST of the first symbol **X**.
- If X can produce ϵ , then also consider FIRST of the next symbol **Y**.
- Continue until a symbol cannot produce ϵ .

Computation of First():

We know that

First(terminals) = {terminal} Rule 2

First(ϵ) = $\{\epsilon\}$ Rule 1

Final First()

FIRST(S) = {a}

FIRST(B) = {c}

FIRST(C) = {b, ϵ }

FIRST(D) = {g, f, ϵ }

FIRST(E) = {g, ϵ }

FIRST(F) = {f, ϵ }

- FIRST(E) = FIRST(g) $\cup$ FIRST(ϵ)
= {g} $\cup$ { ϵ }
= {g, ϵ } Rule-3
- FIRST(F) = FIRST(f) $\cup$ FIRST(ϵ)
= {f} $\cup$ { ϵ }
= {f, ϵ } Rule-3
- FIRST(C) = FIRST(bC) $\cup$ FIRST(ϵ)
= {b} $\cup$ { ϵ } Rule-4
= {b, ϵ } Rule-3
- FIRST(B) = FIRST(c)
= {c} Rule-4
- FIRST(D) = FIRST(E) - { ϵ } $\cup$ FIRST(F)
= {g} $\cup$ {f, ϵ }
= {g, f, ϵ } Rule-4:
- FIRST(S) = FIRST(a)
= {a} Rule-4

Computation of Follow():

- We already have First()
- For the start symbol S,

$$\text{Follow}(S) = \{ \$ \} \quad \text{Rule-01}$$

- **Production S $\rightarrow$ aBDh** Rule 03
- For Follow(B),

$$\beta = \mathbf{Dh} \text{ and } \text{First}(\text{Dh}) = \{g, f, h\}$$

Since ε is **not** in First(Dh),

$$\text{Follow}(B) = \{g, f, h\}$$

For Follow(**D**), $\beta = \mathbf{h}$ and First(h) = {h}

$$\text{Follow}(D) = \{h\}$$

- **Production D $\rightarrow$ EF** Rule 03
- For Follow(E), $\beta = \mathbf{F}$ and First(F) = {f, ε }

Since $\varepsilon \in \text{First}(F)$

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Follow}(E) &= \{\text{First}(F) - \varepsilon\} \cup \text{Follow}(D) \\ &= \{f\} \cup \{h\} \\ &= \{f, h\} \end{aligned}$$

Production D $\rightarrow$ EF

Rule 02

For Follow(F)

$$\text{Follow}(F) = \text{Follow}(D) = \{h\}$$

Production B $\rightarrow$ cC

Rule 02

For Follow(C)

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Follow}(C) &= \text{Follow}(B) \\ &= \{g, f, h\} \end{aligned}$$

Final Follow()

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Follow}(S) &= \{ \$ \} \\ \text{Follow}(B) &= \{g, f, h\} \\ \text{Follow}(D) &= \{h\} \\ \text{Follow}(E) &= \{f, h\} \\ \text{Follow}(F) &= \{ h \} \\ \text{Follow}(C) &= \{g, f, h\} \end{aligned}$$

Example 2:

$S \rightarrow AB$

$A \rightarrow a \mid \epsilon$

$B \rightarrow bB \mid c$

FIRST Computation:

FIRST(A):

$A \rightarrow a \rightarrow \text{add } a$

$A \rightarrow \epsilon \rightarrow \text{add } \epsilon$

So, $\text{FIRST}(A) = \{ a, \epsilon \}$

FIRST(B):

$B \rightarrow bB \rightarrow \text{add } b$

$B \rightarrow c \rightarrow \text{add } c$

So, $\text{FIRST}(B) = \{ b, c \}$

FIRST(S):

In $S \rightarrow AB$

$\text{FIRST}(A)$ contains **a**, so add **a**

A can produce ϵ , so check B

$\text{FIRST}(B)$ contains **b, c**, so add them

So, $\text{FIRST}(S) = \{ a, b, c \}$

Final FIRST()

$\text{FIRST}(S) = \{ a, b, c \}$

$\text{FIRST}(A) = \{ a, \epsilon \}$

$\text{FIRST}(B) = \{ b, c \}$

FOLLOW Computation

Since S is the start symbol:

$\text{FOLLOW}(S) = \{ \$ \}$

FOLLOW(A):

From $S \rightarrow AB$, As A is followed by B

Add $\text{FIRST}(B) - \{ \epsilon \}$ to $\text{FOLLOW}(A)$

$\text{FIRST}(B) = \{ b, c \}$

Thus $\text{FOLLOW}(A) = \{ b, c \}$

FOLLOW(B): From $S \rightarrow AB$

As B is at the end, so add $\text{FOLLOW}(S)$ to $\text{Follow}(B)$

$\text{FOLLOW}(B) = \{ \$ \}$

Final FOLLOW()

$\text{FOLLOW}(S) = \{ \$ \}$

$\text{FOLLOW}(A) = \{ b, c \}$

$\text{FOLLOW}(B) = \{ \$ \}$

Example 3:

$S \rightarrow A$

$A \rightarrow aBA'$

$A' \rightarrow dA' \mid \epsilon$

$B \rightarrow b$

$C \rightarrow g$

Compute first() and
Follow()

FIRST Computation

$\text{FIRST}(S) = \{ a \}$

$\text{FIRST}(A) = \{ a \}$

$\text{FIRST}(A') = \{ d, \epsilon \}$

$\text{FIRST}(B) = \{ b \}$

$\text{FIRST}(C) = \{ g \}$

FOLLOW Computation

$\text{FOLLOW}(S) = \{ \$ \}$

$\text{FOLLOW}(A) = \{ \$ \}$

$\text{FOLLOW}(A') = \{ \$ \}$

$\text{FOLLOW}(B) = \{ d, \$ \}$

$\text{FOLLOW}(C) = \{ \}$

Compute the FIRST and FOLLOW of all the non-terminals

Practice 1: TU- 2081

$$\begin{aligned} S &\rightarrow AB \\ A &\rightarrow 0A' \mid 1A' \mid \varepsilon \\ A' &\rightarrow SSA' \mid \varepsilon \\ B &\rightarrow AS \mid 1 \end{aligned}$$

Practice 2: TU- 2080

$$\begin{aligned} S &\rightarrow aAbCD \mid \varepsilon \\ A &\rightarrow SD \mid \varepsilon \\ C &\rightarrow Sa \\ D &\rightarrow aBD \mid \varepsilon \end{aligned}$$

Practice 3:

$$\begin{aligned} S &\rightarrow (L) \mid a \\ L &\rightarrow SL' \\ L' &\rightarrow ,SL' \mid \varepsilon \end{aligned}$$

Practice 4:

$$\begin{aligned} S &\rightarrow ACB \mid CbB \mid Ba \\ A &\rightarrow da \mid BC \\ B &\rightarrow g \mid \varepsilon \\ C &\rightarrow h \mid \varepsilon \end{aligned}$$

Construction of LL(1) Parsing Table

- An **LL(1) parsing table** is built using the **FIRST** and **FOLLOW** sets.
- It helps the parser to select the correct production rule using the **non-terminal** and **lookahead symbol**.

Construct LL(1) Parsing Table : Steps

- Create a table
- Rows represent non-terminals and Columns represent terminals and the end symbol \$
- For each production rule: $A \rightarrow \alpha$ in grammar
 - Find $\text{FIRST}(\alpha)$.
 - For every terminal **a** in $\text{FIRST}(\alpha)$
 - Add $A \rightarrow \alpha$ in table entry $M[A, a]$
- If ϵ is in $\text{FIRST}(\alpha)$,
 - then for every terminal **a** in $\text{FOLLOW}(A)$, add $A \rightarrow \alpha$ in $M[A, a]$
- If ϵ is in $\text{FIRST}(\alpha)$ and \$ is in $\text{FOLLOW}(A)$,
 - Add $A \rightarrow \alpha$ to $M[A, \$]$
- If any table entry contains more than one production rule, the grammar is not LL(1).

Practice 1: Construct LL(1) Parser

$S \rightarrow aABb$

$A \rightarrow c \mid \epsilon$

$B \rightarrow d \mid \epsilon$

Find FIRST()

$FIRST(A)=\{c,\epsilon\}$

$FIRST(B)=\{d,\epsilon\}$

$FIRST(S)=\{a\}$

Find FOLLOW()

$FOLLOW(S)=\{\$ \}$

$FOLLOW(A)=\{ d, b\}$

$FOLLOW(B)=\{b\}$

Now Construct LL(1) Parse Table

- For $S \rightarrow aABb$, $FIRST(aABb)=\{a\}$,
Add $M[S, a] = S \rightarrow aABb$

- For $A \rightarrow c$,
 $FIRST(c)=\{c\}$
Add $M[A, c] = A \rightarrow c$
- For $A \rightarrow \epsilon$
Since $\epsilon \in FIRST(\epsilon)$, Use $FOLLOW(A)=\{ d, b\}$
Add $M[A, d] = A \rightarrow \epsilon$ and $M[A, b] = A \rightarrow \epsilon$
- For $B \rightarrow d$
 $FIRST(d)=\{d\}$, Add $M[B, d] = B \rightarrow d$
- For $B \rightarrow \epsilon$
Since $\epsilon \in FIRST(\epsilon)$, Use $FOLLOW(B)=\{b\}$
Add $M[B, b] = B \rightarrow \epsilon$

Non-Terminal	a	b	c	d	\$
S	$S \rightarrow aABb$				
A		$A \rightarrow \epsilon$	$A \rightarrow c$	$A \rightarrow \epsilon$	
B		$B \rightarrow \epsilon$		$B \rightarrow d$	

Final LL(1) Parse Table

Parsing of input string

w = acdb

We have

Non-Terminal	a	b	c	d	\$
S	$S \rightarrow aABb$				
A		$A \rightarrow \epsilon$	$A \rightarrow c$	$A \rightarrow \epsilon$	
B		$B \rightarrow \epsilon$		$B \rightarrow d$	

Predictive Parsing Process:



Stack	Input	Action
S\$	acdb\$	Use $S \rightarrow aABb$
aABb\$	acdb\$	Match a
ABb\$	cdb\$	Use $A \rightarrow c$
cb\$	cdb\$	Match c
Bb\$	db\$	Use $B \rightarrow d$
db\$	db\$	Match d
b\$	b\$	Match b
\$	\$	Accept

Class Work:

Show parsing of string w = ab , acb

Example 2:

$E \rightarrow T E'$
 $E' \rightarrow + T E' \mid \epsilon$
 $T \rightarrow id$

Find FIRST Sets

$FIRST(T) = \{ id \}$
 $FIRST(E') = \{ +, \epsilon \}$
 $FIRST(E) = \{ id \}$

Find FOLLOW Sets

$FOLLOW(E) = \{ \$ \}$
 $FOLLOW(E') = \{ \$ \}$
 $FOLLOW(T) = \{ +, \$ \}$

Constructing LL(1) Parsing Table

For $E \rightarrow T E'$ $FIRST(TE') : \{ id \}$
Add $M[E, id] = E \rightarrow T E'$
For $E' \rightarrow + T E'$ $FIRST(+TE') : \{ + \}$
Add $M[E', +] = E' \rightarrow + T E'$
For $E' \rightarrow \epsilon$
Since $\epsilon \in FIRST(\epsilon)$, Use $FOLLOW(E') = \{ \$ \}$
Add $M[E', \$] = E' \rightarrow \epsilon$
 $T \rightarrow id$ $FIRST(id) : \{ id \}$
Add $M[T, id] = T \rightarrow id$

Non-Terminal	id	+	\$
E	$E \rightarrow T E'$		
E'		$E' \rightarrow + T E'$	$E' \rightarrow \epsilon$
T	$T \rightarrow id$		

Class Work:
Show parsing
of string
 $w = id + id, id + id + id$

Use Parse
table.

First() and Follow() computation

Symbol	FIRST	FOLLOW
E	{ id, (}	{ \$,) }
E'	{ +, ε }	{ \$,) }
T	{ id, (}	{ +, \$,) }
T'	{ *, ε }	{ +, \$,) }
F	{ id, (}	{ *, +, \$,) }

Example 3:

Construct LL(1) Parse Table

$E \rightarrow T E'$

$E' \rightarrow + T E' \mid \varepsilon$

$T \rightarrow F T'$

$T' \rightarrow * F T' \mid \varepsilon$

$F \rightarrow \text{id} \mid (E)$

Non-Terminal	id	+	*	(	)	\$
E	$E \rightarrow TE'$			$E \rightarrow TE'$		
E'		$E' \rightarrow +TE'$		—	$E' \rightarrow \varepsilon$	$E' \rightarrow \varepsilon$
T	$T \rightarrow FT'$			$T \rightarrow FT'$		
T'		$T' \rightarrow \varepsilon$	$T' \rightarrow *FT'$	—	$T' \rightarrow \varepsilon$	$T' \rightarrow \varepsilon$
F	$F \rightarrow \text{id}$			$F \rightarrow (E)$		

Final LL(1) Parse Table

Compiled By: Ashok Pandey

Class Work:

Show parsing of
string $w = \text{id} + \text{id}$,
 $\text{id} * \text{id}$, (id) ,
 $\text{id} + \text{id} * \text{id}$

Use Parse table.

Construct LL(1) parsing table for following grammar.

Also check they are LL(1) grammar or not?

Practice 1:

$$S \rightarrow AB$$

$$A \rightarrow aA \mid \varepsilon$$

$$B \rightarrow bB \mid \varepsilon$$

Practice 2:

$$S \rightarrow A \mid a$$

$$A \rightarrow a$$

Practice 3:

$$E \rightarrow E + T \mid T$$

$$T \rightarrow T * F \mid F$$

$$F \rightarrow (E) \mid \text{id}$$

Practice 4:

$$S \rightarrow aA \mid bAc$$

$$A \rightarrow c \mid \varepsilon$$

Practice 5:

$$S \rightarrow aA$$

$$S \rightarrow aB$$

$$A \rightarrow c$$

$$B \rightarrow d$$

LL(1) Grammars and Languages

LL(1) Grammar

- A context-free grammar (CFG) is called an LL(1) grammar if its LL(1) parsing table has no multiple entries (no conflicts).
- This means the parser can choose only one production rule for every non-terminal and lookahead symbol.

Meaning of LL(1)

- First L (Left-to-right): The parser reads the input from left to right.
- Second L (Leftmost derivation): The parser constructs a leftmost derivation.
- 1: The parser uses one lookahead input symbol to select the correct production rule.

LL(1) Language

- A language is called an **LL(1) language** if it can be generated by an **LL(1) grammar**.

Properties of LL(1) Grammar

An LL(1) grammar:

- Has **no ambiguity** i.e. every string has only one parse tree.
- Has **no left recursion**.
- Has **no conflicts** in the LL(1) parsing table i.e. each table entry contains at most one production.
- Can be parsed **without backtracking**.
- Uses **one lookahead symbol** to predict the correct production rule.

Advantages of LL Parsing

- Simple to understand and implement.
- Fast and efficient because it does not use backtracking.
- Uses predictive parsing, which helps detect and report errors easily.
- Suitable for many programming language grammars.
- Can be automatically generated for LL(1) grammars.

Disadvantages of LL Parsing

- Works only for LL(1) grammars (or LL(k) grammars with k lookahead symbols).
- Cannot handle left-recursive grammars.
- Left factoring may be required before constructing the parser.
- If lookahead symbols (k) are large, the parser becomes more complex and slower.
- Cannot parse ambiguous grammars.